

Indian Traditions, Cultural and Society

India is a land of rich culture and tradition which teaches people kindness, generosity, and tolerance. Indian culture differs from place to place as it is a multilingual, multicultural, and multi-ethnic society. Indian culture is a unique blend of modern western culture and historical traditions.

Some of the unique customs and traditions of Indian culture include:

1. **Greeting - The Namaste:** Namaste is a popular way of greeting in India, which translates to 'I bow to the divine in you'. This respectful way of saying hello, goodbye, and thank you has seen a huge uptake around the world during the Coronavirus outbreak as an alternative to handshakes and hugs .
2. **Festivals & Religion:** India is known for its festive season, with numerous festivals and religious celebrations taking place throughout the year.
3. **Family Structure - Joint Families:** Joint families, where multiple generations live together, are common in India.
4. **Symbols - Fasting:** Fasting is an important part of Indian culture, with many people observing fasts for religious or spiritual reasons.
5. **Religious Customs - Holy Cow:** Cows are considered sacred in Hinduism, and are often revered and protected in India.
6. **Architecture - The Science Behind Temples:** Temples are an important part of Indian culture, with many featuring intricate designs and architecture.
7. **Marriage - Arranged Marriage System:** Arranged marriages, where families play a role in selecting a spouse for their children, are common in India.

Religion has historically influenced Indian society on a political, cultural, and economic level. There is a sense of pride associated with the country's rich religious history as the traditions of Hinduism, Buddhism, Sikhism, and Jainism all emerged out of India.

Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

1. Society in India is characterized by its diversity, with a wide range of religions, languages, and cultures.
2. The Indian state is a federal parliamentary democratic republic, with a President as the head of state and a Prime Minister as the head of government.
3. The Indian polity is based on the Constitution of India, which came into effect on 26th January 1950.
4. The Constitution provides for a separation of powers among the legislature, executive, and judiciary.
5. India has a multi-party system, with numerous political parties representing different ideologies and interests.

6. Elections are held regularly to choose representatives for the national parliament and state assemblies.
7. The Indian legal system is based on a combination of common law and civil law, with the Supreme Court of India being the highest court of appeal.
8. India has a mixed economy, with elements of both capitalism and socialism.
9. The government plays an active role in the economy, with a focus on promoting development and reducing poverty.
10. India is a member of various international organizations, including the United Nations, World Bank, and World Trade Organization.

State in Ancient India

- States in ancient India were loosely categorized into monarchy, republican, and oligarchy. Monarchy was the most prevalent type of state in ancient India .
- The state in ancient India was considered necessary, for it ensured peace, order, and happiness. It was a social organization with political power .
- Ancient scholars were not unanimous in their opinion with regard to the origin of the state. The three theories of the origin of the state in ancient India are as follows:
 1. Social Contract Theory
 2. Divine Origin Theory
 3. Organic Theory .
- The core issues in the study of political science are the state and the government. The institution of the state is studied in relation to its origin, nature, aims, and functions of the state in ancient India .

Theories of origin of State in India

There are three main theories of the origin of the state in ancient India. These are:

1. **Social Contract Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was formed as a result of an agreement between individuals to give up some of their rights in exchange for protection and security provided by the state.
2. **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was created by a divine power and that the rulers of the state were chosen by the gods.
3. **Organic Theory:** This theory suggests that the state is a natural and organic growth, arising from the needs of society and evolving over time.

The institution of the state is studied in relation to its origin, nature, aims, and functions in ancient India . These theories provide different perspectives on the formation and role of the state in ancient Indian society.

Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

The Evolutionary Theory of the origin of the state is one of the major theories concerning the origin of the state. According to this theory, the state is a natural development from the family and social organization of early human societies.

1. The theory suggests that the state originated from the family, with the head of the family being the first ruler.
2. As families grew and formed clans, the head of the clan became the ruler.
3. As clans joined together to form tribes, the head of the tribe became the ruler.
4. Eventually, tribes joined together to form a state, with the head of the state being the ruler.
5. The state, according to this theory, is a natural progression from the family, clan, and tribe, with the ruler being the head of the state.

This theory is based on the idea that the state is a natural development from the social organization of early human societies. It suggests that the state is a necessary and inevitable institution that arose as human societies became more complex.

Force Theory of Origin of State

The Force Theory of Origin of State is one of the several theories that explain the origin of the state. According to this theory, the state came into existence as a result of the use of force. Here are some key points about this theory:

1. The theory suggests that the state was created when one group or individual was able to gain control over a territory and its inhabitants through the use of force.
2. The group or individual that gained control then established a government to maintain their power and control over the territory and its inhabitants.
3. The use of force could have taken many forms, including warfare, conquest, or subjugation.
4. The theory is often associated with the idea of “might makes right,” where the group or individual with the most power is able to establish and maintain control.
5. Critics of the theory argue that it oversimplifies the complex processes involved in the formation of states and that it ignores other factors such as economic, social, and cultural developments.

Mystical Theory of origin of State

The mystical theory of the origin of the state is one of the oldest theories that explains the formation of the state. According to this theory, the state is of divine origin and is created by God or gods. The ruler is considered to be the representative of God on earth and is responsible for maintaining order and justice in society. Here are some key points about this theory:

1. The state is considered to be of divine origin and is created by God or gods.
2. The ruler is considered to be the representative of God on earth.
3. The ruler is responsible for maintaining order and justice in society.
4. The theory is based on the belief in the divine right of kings, where the monarch is considered to be chosen by God to rule.
5. This theory was prevalent in ancient civilizations such as Egypt, Mesopotamia, and China, where the rulers were considered to be divine or semi-divine.
6. The theory has been criticized for being unscientific and for justifying the absolute power of the ruler.

Contract Theory of origin of State

The Contract Theory of the origin of the state is a concept in political philosophy that explains the formation of states and governments. According to this theory, the state is formed as a result of a social contract between individuals in a society.

1. The theory suggests that individuals in a society come together and agree to give up some of their individual rights and freedoms in exchange for protection and security provided by the state.
2. This social contract is seen as a voluntary agreement between individuals and the state, where the state is given the power to govern and enforce laws in order to maintain order and protect the rights of its citizens.
3. The Contract Theory is often associated with philosophers such as Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, and Jean-Jacques Rousseau, who each had their own interpretations of the concept.
4. Hobbes, for example, believed that the state of nature was a state of war and that individuals needed to surrender their rights to a sovereign in order to ensure their own survival.
5. Locke, on the other hand, believed that individuals had natural rights to life, liberty, and property, and that the state was formed to protect these rights.
6. Rousseau believed that the social contract was not just between individuals and the state, but also between individuals themselves, and that the state was formed to ensure the common good of all its citizens.
7. The Contract Theory has been influential in shaping modern political thought and has been used to justify the existence of states and governments.

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

The formation of states in ancient India was a gradual process that involved the creation and appropriation of surplus. This process was closely linked with the growth and spread of agriculture, trade, industry, and urbanization. The spread of agriculture along river valleys led to the generation of agricultural surplus, which in turn led to the development of trade, commerce, and urbanization.

The first states, known as Janapadas, emerged in these river valleys, and this pattern was replicated in the South and East of India.

According to ancient Indian texts, a kingdom, or *rajya*, was constituted of seven elements, or *sapta-prakrtayah*, also known as the seven limbs, or *sapta-anga*. These were the king (*swamin*), minister (*amatya*), city (*pura*), domain/territory (*rastra*), treasury (*kosa*), army (*danda*), and ally (*suhrd/mitra*).

In the course of the evolution of the state in Indian history, monarchies gradually conquered the republics in ancient India. Monarchies remained the mode of government in ancient, medieval, and modern India until the British Raj, without any revival of republicanism. The republican form of government could only be revived after India's independence in 1947.

The establishment of the Delhi Sultanate in 1206 AD changed the political landscape of northern India, with the strategically placed capital of Delhi becoming the new seat of central power. India's next imperial unification occurred under the Great Mughals, from Babur to Akbar (1526-1605 AD).

Kingship in states in Ancient India

- Monarchy in ancient India was a sovereignty over a territory by a King who functioned as its protector, a role which involved both secular and religious power.
- The meaning and significance of kingship changed dramatically between the Vedic and Later Vedic period, and underwent further development under the times of the Jain and Buddhist rulers.
- The role of a King in ancient India has been emphasized vaguely in Vedic Literature. It has been considered that the Kingship was in most cases not elective.
- Ancient Indians believed that the Kingship arose out of military requirement.
- There were different theories of origin of kingship as well as the state in ancient Indian polity.
- According to one theory, the king was a subordinate to law, which was made by the society and not him. The community as a whole was given greater importance than the king.
- The ideology and symbolism of kingship have played an important role in Hinduism throughout its history, an influence that continues into the present day.
- The two great epic texts, the *Mahābhārata* and *Rāmāyaṇa*, are narratives of kingship, and the tensions and ambiguities inherent to the role of the king are fundamental to these texts.
- The study of kingship and its various related aspects are of tremendous importance.

Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The Council of Ministers, also known as **Mantri-parishad**, was a concept commonly known to the ancient Indian science of Society and Polity.
- It was defined in **Kauṭilya's Arthaśāstra** (4th century BCE), one of the most influential treatises of political science.
- The Council of Ministers was next in importance to the king.
- The Mauryas and the Sungas had a habitual council of ministers known as **Mantri-parishad**.
- The Saka rulers ruled with the assistance of a council of **mati sachivas** and **karma-sachivas**.
- The ministers under the Maukharis exercised great power.
- The council of ministers is variously designated as **Mantra** or **Mantri-parishad**, **Mantri-maṇḍala** and **Mantri-gaṇa**.
- The Prime Minister was known as **Mantrimukhya** or **Mahāmantri**.
- He was the leader of the cabinet, and the chief confidant of the king.
- He presided over the deliberations of the cabinet in the absence of the king.

Administration in Ancient India

- In the Indian Administrative System in ancient period, different systems of administration are found to have existed at different periods. The earliest reference can be traced to the Indus Valley civilization.
- From excavations, scholars have come to the conclusion that government in Mohenjodaro and Harappa was systematic.
- Indian Administrative System in Ancient Period was an extremely well-organised one. Ancient Indian political system goes back to about five thousand years or more.
- Administration was sufficiently developed. The head of administration was the king. To advise him in matters of the state and government, there used to be ministers and councillors.
- During the Mahabharata period the state has been called 'Saptanghi' and the principal form of government was monarchy.
- There were many small republics also in ancient India. These republics had some elements of democracy in their administration.
- The king (raja) was the supreme head of the legislative, executive and judiciary branches. He was assisted in administration by a number of officials.
- In ancient India big empires were divided into provinces and districts for the sake of administrative convenience, while small kingdoms like Pallavas, Vakatakas and Gahadawalas had only one type of division viz. the districts known by different names like vishaya or rashtra.

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

1. In ancient India, people led a democratic way of living although political democracy did not exist in its full form. Monarchy was also popular. After the sixth century, democratic organizations started declining. Kings and monarchs often remained engaged in wars.
2. Politics was considered the only science worth studying. The state and the government were considered basic instruments for the promotion of peaceful and civilized life.
3. Most of the states in ancient India were politically stable. They often remained for long periods free from internal squabbles and intrigues of the kind we see today. This situation helped them a great deal in initiating measures aimed at improving the quality of life of the common people.
4. The Ancient Indians had for ever subordinated the study of the Science of Politics to that of Theology and Philosophical thought and had never developed it as an independent branch of Knowledge. In Ancient India, there existed an extensive literature on Dandaniti of Arthashastra prior to the time of Kautilya.
5. The King in Indian political thought was assigned with most important functions based on Vedic ideals to rule the people. Based on Vedic dharma Yagnavalkya, Manu, Kautilya and others developed a healthy political tradition for the progress and welfare of the people.

These ideals and traditions from ancient India can still be relevant in modern times as they provide a framework for a stable and just society. The emphasis on the promotion of peaceful and civilized life, the importance of the state and government in improving the quality of life of the common people, and the assignment of important functions to the ruler based on Vedic ideals can all be applied in modern political thought.

Conditions' of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

- In Ancient India, social change meant a shift in social structure. No society is fixed. It varies depending on the nature of the challenges it must address and the requirements it must meet .
- The idea of social welfare has been entrenched in the Indic civilization since ancient times in the concept of duty as opposed to rights .
- The welfare of the people was declared to be the chief concern of the State and it was the duty of all the officers and servants appointed by the King to work for the happiness and welfare of the people .
- Ancient texts explicitly provided for safeguard provisions for the weak and the needy .
- The Indic being a self-centric civilization, conceived welfare as a duty which the individual owed both to the self and to the society at large .
- Discharging one's duties in accordance with Dharma was considered as essential for the spiritual upliftment of an individual .
- The social welfare activities carried out by the State (king) were under-

stood as the duties or Dharma of the king rather than the rights of the subjects which could be demanded from the state .

- The Ashokan era could be argued to be one such example of a full-fledged welfare state of the Indic civilization .
- Ancient Indic literature is abound with instances where the fundamental duties of the kings (state) have been described at length .

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

According to Kautilya, a state has seven elements or constituents, namely, Swamin—the King, Amatya—the Minister, Janapada—the Land, and the People, Durga—the Fortress, Kosha—the Treasury, Danda—the Army and Mitra—the Allies. This entire set-up of the kingdom was described as Saptanga theory in ancient India .

1. **Swamin (The King):** The King is independent and his responsibility for peace, justice and stability is stressed .
2. **Amatya (The Minister):** The Minister or Bureaucrats are responsible for the administration of the state .
3. **Janapada (The Land and the People):** The Land and the People are the territory of the state .
4. **Durga (The Fortress):** The Fortress is responsible for the defense of the state .
5. **Kosha (The Treasury):** The Treasury is responsible for the financial resources of the state .
6. **Danda (The Army):** The Army is responsible for the coercive authority of the state .
7. **Mitra (The Allies):** The Allies are responsible for the diplomatic relations of the state .

This theory was formulated by Kautilya in Arthashastra and refers to the seven organs of the state . The Saptanga theory, which categorically identified the ideal type qualities/excellencies of the state, determined whether a state would evolve into an inferior entity or a superior entity .

Society in Ancient India

- The Ancient Indian society was based upon **Varna** and **ashrams**, a four-fold classification of the entire people into varnas and a fourfold division of the life of each individuals into ashrams (stages).
- The Indo-Aryans were originally divided into three classes the **Brahman**, **Rajanya** and **Vis**.
- Ancient India societies had their distinctive cultures, religions, indigenous beliefs, customs and occupations.
- The customs, beliefs, practices, etc were quite different in the ancient Indian society.
- Ancient India witnessed the evolution of different civilisations.

- The inventions and innovations of the people of ancient India include many aspects of modern life taken for granted today including the flush toilet, drainage and sewer systems, public pools, mathematics, veterinary science, plastic surgery, board games, yoga and meditation, as well as many more.
- The ancient Indus systems of sewage and drainage developed and used in cities throughout the Indus region were far more advanced than any found in contemporary urban sites in the Middle East and even more efficient than those in many areas of Pakistan and India today.
- In the Indian empires from 600 BCE to 600 CE, emperors maintained and further developed social systems that had been in place for a long time.

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

Purusārtha is a fundamental principle of social ethics in ancient Indian society. It refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. These goals are not only meant to set an ideal objective but also to convey the right means to achieve them. The four Purusārthas are Dharma, Artha, Kama, and Moksha.

- **Dharma** refers to righteousness and moral values.
- **Artha** refers to prosperity and economic values.
- **Kama** refers to pleasure, love, and emotional fulfillment.
- **Moksha** refers to liberation from the cycle of birth and death.

The concept of Purusārtha is closely related to the four classes in society and the four stages in the life of an individual. The eventual goal of the varying darsanas is not only to achieve these four aims but also to lead a balanced life through the pursuit of Purusārtha .

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

The Varnāshrama system, also known as Varnashramadharma, was a social structure that developed in ancient Hindu society. The term ‘Varnashramadharma’ consists of three words - ‘varna’, ‘asrama’, and ‘dharma’. Theoretically, the Varna system refers to the segmental division of the Hindu society into four classes.

The four varnas are: 1. **Brahman**: the class of priests and teachers. 2. **Kshatriya**: the class of kings, warriors, and aristocrats. 3. **Vaishya**: the class of traders, merchants, and people engaged in other professions. 4. **Sudra**: the class of laborers.

In addition to the Varna system, the Ashrama system was also a part of the Varnāshrama system. The Ashrama system is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras. The four ashramas are: Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller), and Sannyasa (renunciate).

The Varnāshrama system was a way to organize society and assign specific duties to each class. It was based on the idea of dharma, or the moral and

religious duties of an individual. The system was meant to ensure the smooth functioning of society and the fulfillment of an individual's dharma. However, over time, the system became rigid and was often used to justify discrimination and social inequality.

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

- Āśrama is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras.
- The four āśramas are:
 1. Brahmacharya (student)
 2. Gṛhastha (householder)
 3. Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller)
 4. Sannyasa (renunciate).
- The Āśrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism.
- Ashrams are an outstanding feature of the social organization in ancient India. This system particularly developed during the later Vedic period.
- Liberally Ashram means halting place. But in the Indian social system it implied stoppage or stage in the journey of life with a view to prepare one-self for further journey.

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

- Marriage was regarded as a highly sacred institution in ancient Indian society .
- It involved the meeting of the minds between the spouses for material as well as psychological satisfaction .
- It was a meeting of two families in terms of the bond which they create between them .
- Many scholars hold that the human race must have originally lived in a state of promiscuity, where individual marriage did not exist .
- All the men in a horde or tribe had indiscriminate access to all the women and the children born of these unions belonged to the community at large .
- According to Manusmṛiti, the laws of Manu or Manava Dharma Shastra, there existed eight main forms of Hindu marriages in ancient India .
- These forms of marriage were Brahma Vivah, Daiva Vivah, Arsha Vivah, Prajapatya Vivah, Gandharva Vivah, Asura Vivah, Rakshasa Vivah, and Pisaka Vivah .
- In Hinduism, marriage is considered a sacrament between individuals of the same sex and gender .
- Marriage in Hinduism symbolizes diverse aspects of human nature: love, selflessness, trust, affection, and compassion .
- Kinship relations are often established through marriages, whether between father and son, mother and daughter, or brothers .

Understanding Gender as a social category in Society in Ancient India

- Gender roles in ancient India were greatly influenced by the society's favor towards men. For instance, when a mother was going to give birth, everyone hoped that the baby would turn out to be a baby boy.
- However, women in ancient India were considered with respect and dignity. During this period, there were women rishis, and they were held in high esteem.
- Gender Equality was one among many such values that was inculcated into the society and practiced as a norm. Almost all scholars today agree without a doubt that women in ancient India held an elevated position.
- Women were provided with the same level of education as men and could be a part of religious or philosophical debates.
- In ancient India, especially in Indus valley civilization, women had a respectable position in society. In the early Vedic period, there was a plethora of opportunities for women.
- Women in ancient India played a significant role. The Rig Vedic Women in India enjoyed high status in society. Their condition was good. The women were provided the opportunity to attain high intellectual and spiritual standards. There were many women Rishis during this period.

The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India

- A historical understanding of the status of women in early Indian society shows a declining trend in the position of women.
- Women in ancient India did not share an equal position with men and were recognized only as wives and mothers.
- In the Indus Valley civilization, the worship of the mother goddess highlights the respect for women as mothers. Women were given equal honor along with men in society and enjoyed full freedom.
- Women in ancient India enjoyed high status in society and their condition was good.
- Classical Hindu laws focus almost exclusively on women as wives. Role models and norms for mothers, daughters, and sisters are more apt to appear in folklore and vernacular traditions.
- Most written traditions emphasize women's behavior in relationship to men: wife/husband; mother/son; daughter/father; sister/brother.
- India has rooted its morality in myths and theology for hundreds of years and still has a long way to go towards the fair treatment of women today.
- The condition of women became worse in the Gupta period. The Smritishastras abused them; Manusmriti dictated that a woman would be dependent on her father in childhood, on her husband in youth, and on her son in old age.
- Apart from child marriage and sati, prostitution and the Devadasi system

became widespread.

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

- A historical understanding of the status of women in early Indian society shows a declining trend in the position of women. Women did not share an equal position with men and were recognized only as wives and mothers. Their position was subordinate to men.
- Women in ancient India enjoyed high status in society and their condition was good. The Vedic women had economic freedom and some women were engaged in teaching work. Home was the place of production and women also helped their husbands in agricultural pursuit. In the religious field, wife enjoyed full rights and regularly participated in religious ceremonies with her husband. Women even participated actively in religious discourses.
- The status of women improved a little during the Buddhist period though there was no tremendous change. Ancient India had many learned ladies.
- The Medieval period (Period between 500 A.D to 1500 A.D) proved to be highly disappointing for the Indian women, for their status further deteriorated during this period. The Smritishastras abused them; Manu dictated a woman would be dependent on her father in childhood, on her husband in youth and on her son in old age. Apart from child marriage and sati, prostitution and Devadasi system became widespread.
- The problems of women and family life in ancient India were studied by some western orientalist too, such as, C. Bader and J. J. Meyer, who deeply admired the ideal of self-sacrificing Indian womanhood owing to their sense of disillusionment with the gross materialism of the industrial society.

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

In ancient India, society was divided into four classes, or varnas, based on occupation and social status. These classes were:

1. **Brahmins:** The priestly class, responsible for performing religious rituals and providing spiritual guidance.
2. **Kshatriyas:** The warrior class, responsible for protecting the people and maintaining law and order.
3. **Vaishyas:** The merchant class, responsible for trade and commerce.
4. **Shudras:** The laboring class, responsible for performing manual labor and serving the other classes.

This system of classification was rigid and hereditary, with individuals born into a particular class and expected to follow the occupation of their parents. The system also included a fifth group, known as the “untouchables,” who were considered outside the varna system and performed tasks considered impure or unclean.

The varna system was an integral part of ancient Indian society and influenced many aspects of daily life, including marriage, occupation, and social interactions. However, it has been criticized for perpetuating social inequality and discrimination. Today, the caste system is illegal in India, but its influence can still be seen in some aspects of society.

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- When Megasthenes came to India in the 4th Century B.C., he found that slavery system was unknown to the Ancient Indian society. He declared all the Indians are free and that slaves do not exist in India.
- However, Megasthenes' observations about the non-existence of slavery in Ancient India are not supported by available evidences. From the Smritis and other Hindu Law Books, it is clear that slavery was a recognized institution in India in the Vedic Age. The Rig Veda mentions the non-Aryan enemies of the Aryans as Dasyu and Dasa.
- Slavery existed in ancient India, where it is recorded in the Sanskrit Laws of Manu of the 1st century BCE. The institution was little documented until the British colonials in the 19th century made it an object of study because of their desire to abolish it.
- Slavery and empire-formation tied in particularly well with iqta and it is within this context of Islamic expansion that elite slavery was later commonly found. It became the predominant system in North India in the thirteenth century and retained considerable importance in the fourteenth century.

Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices

1. Indian literature is one of the oldest in the world, with a rich tradition of poetry, drama, and prose in various languages.
2. Indian culture is diverse and encompasses a wide range of customs, beliefs, and practices, influenced by the country's history, geography, and religions.
3. Indian traditions include festivals, rituals, and ceremonies that are celebrated throughout the year, often with great enthusiasm and community participation.
4. Indian practices include a variety of social, religious, and cultural activities, such as yoga, meditation, and Ayurveda, which have gained popularity worldwide.

Evolution of script in India

- The evolution of writing in India is well understood and needs no recounting.

- All the modern scripts of India, for Indo-Aryan as well as Dravidian languages, as well as the scripts of Sri Lanka, Tibet, Southeast Asia, including the original scripts of Philippines and Indonesia, are derived from Brahmi.
- Due to differences in cultures and regions, the Brahmi script evolved into different types depending on the region.
- A greater emphasis on a quicker approach rather than the use of monumental inscriptions led to the emergence of cursive styles that formed India's modern script.
- Scripts in south India became rounded due to writing on palm leaves.
- The evolution of Brahmi into so many scripts over time in India does, however, raise the question of what individuals and scribes thought about the changes upon becoming aware of the fact that their contemporary writing systems were divergent in separate regions, and were also vastly different from the forms found in inscriptions and ancient documents.
- Inscriptions in multiple different Indian scripts have been found together, like Kannada with Devanagari.
- India has a long history of writing and has been a literate culture for millennia, but it has also greatly valued oral knowledge.
- The ancient Hindu scriptures, the Vedas, the oldest of which were composed around 1500 BCE, were transmitted orally for centuries before being written down.
- Most modern Indian scripts have developed from the Brahmi script over hundreds of years.

Evolution of languages in India

1. Throughout history, the evolution of Indian languages is a constant ebb and flow of influences and reconstruction from early proto-languages to the modern Indian languages.
2. The northern Indian languages from the Calistini family evolved from Old Indo-Aryan such as Sanskrit, by way of the Middle Indo-Aryan Prakrit languages and the Apabhramsha of the Middle Ages.
3. Hindi, Urdu, Tamil, Malayalam, Portuguese and English words pinballed around the globe in the 16th and 17th Centuries, revealing how languages evolve over time as culture is made and remade, and people adapt to conditions around them.
4. Since the Iron Age in India, the native languages of the Indian subcontinent are divided into various language families, of which the Indo-Aryan and the Dravidian are the most widely spoken. There are also many languages belonging to unrelated language families such as Austroasiatic and Sino-Tibetan, spoken by smaller groups.

Harappan Script

- The Harappan Script, also known as the Indus Script, is a corpus of symbols produced by the Indus Valley Civilization.

- Most inscriptions containing these symbols are extremely short, making it difficult to judge whether or not they constituted a writing system used to record the as-yet unidentified language(s) of the Indus Valley Civilization.
- The script found in the Indus Valley from Harappa and Mohenjo-Daro is the oldest known script of India. Unfortunately, till now it has not been read satisfactorily. This has made the problem of the Indus Valley script even more intractable.
- The Harappan script has long defied attempts to read it, and therefore the language remains unknown.
- The Indus Script combined both word signs and symbols with phonetic value. This type of writing system is known as “logo-syllabic”, where some symbols express ideas or words while others represent sounds. This view is based on the fact that roughly 400 signs have been identified, which makes it unlikely that the Indus Script was solely phonetic.

Brahmi Script

- The Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script .
- It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi .
- The Brahmi writing system, or script, appeared as a fully developed universal one in South Asia in the third century BCE .
- It is a forerunner of all writing systems that have found use in South Asia with the exception of the Indus script of the third millennium BCE, the Kharosthi script, which originated in what today is northwestern Pakistan in the fourth or possibly fifth century BCE, the Perso-Arabic Scripts of the medieval period, and the Latin scripts of the modern period .
- The Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations .
- For example, the Lipisala samdarshana parivarta lists 64 lipi (scripts), with the Brahmi script starting the list .
- The Brahmi script was already divided into regional variants at the time of the earliest surviving epigraphy around the 3rd century BC .
- Cursives of the Brahmi script began to diversify further from around the 5th century AD and continued to give rise to new scripts throughout the Middle Ages .
- The Brāhmī alphabet is the ancestor of most of the 40 or so modern Indian alphabets, Khmer and Tibetan .
- It is thought to have been modelled on the Aramaic or Phoenician alphabets, and appeared in India sometime before 500 BC .
- Another theory is that Brāhmī developed from the Indus or Harappa script, which was used in the Indus valley until around 1300 BC .

The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India.
- Composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the texts constitute the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The term “veda” means “knowledge” and they are thought to contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence.
- There are four Vedas: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda, and the Atharvaveda.
- The Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic, and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day.
- All the obligatory duties of Hindus at birth, marriage, death, etc. are guided by Vedic rituals.
- The word Veda means wisdom, knowledge, or vision, and it serves to manifest the language of the gods in human speech.

The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are late Vedic Sanskrit texts that supplied the basis of later Hindu philosophy.
- They are commonly referred to as Vedānta, which has been interpreted as the “last chapters, parts of the Veda” and alternatively as “object, the highest purpose of the Veda”.
- The aim of all Upanishads is to investigate the nature of Ātman (self), and “direct [ing] the enquirer toward it”.
- There are more than 200 known Upanishads, one of which, the Muktikā Upanishad, predates 1656 CE and contains a list of 108 canonical Upanishads, including itself as the last.
- These are further divided into Upanishads associated with Shaktism (goddess Shakti), Sannyasa (renunciation, monastic life), Shaivism (god Shiva), Vaishnavism (god Vishnu).
- The Upanishads present a vision of an interconnected universe with a single, unifying principle behind the apparent diversity in the cosmos, any articulation of which is called brahman.
- Within this context, the Upanishads teach that brahman resides in the atman, the unchanging core of the human individual.

The Ramayana

- The Ramayana is an ancient Indian epic poem, composed in Sanskrit by the sage Valmiki .
- It belongs to the genre of Itihasa, narratives of past events (purāṇvṛtta), which includes the Mahabharata, the Puranas, and the Ramayana. The genre also includes teachings on the goals of human life .
- The Ramayana was composed probably not before 300 BCE and in its present form consists of some 24,000 couplets divided into seven books .

- It tells the story of the exile and then return of Rama, prince of Ayodhya .
- The Ramayana was an important influence on later Sanskrit poetry and the Hindu life and culture, and its main characters were fundamental to the cultural consciousness of a number of nations, both Hindu and Buddhist .

The Mahabharata

- The Mahabharata is one of the two great Sanskrit epics of the Hindus, existing in its present form since c.
- It is one of the two Sanskrit epic poems of ancient India (the other being the Ramayana).
- The Mahabharata is an exposition of dharma (codes of conduct), including the proper conduct of a king, of a warrior, of an individual living in times of calamity, and of a person seeking to attain moksha (freedom from samsara, or rebirth).
- It is an important source of information on the development of Hinduism between 400 BCE and 200 CE and is regarded by Hindus as both a text about dharma (Hindu moral law) and a history.

Puranas

- Puranas are a vast genre of Indian literature about a wide range of topics, particularly about legends and other traditional lore .
- The word “Purana” literally means “ancient” or “old” in Sanskrit .
- Puranas are known for the intricate layers of symbolism depicted within their stories .
- Puranas are considered one of the most ancient Indian literature about Hinduism .
- Puranas are post-Vedic Texts and are regarded as the fifth Veda .
- The Puranas are a class of literary texts, all written in Sanskrit verse .
- The composition of Puranas dates from the 4th century BCE to about 1,000 A.D .
- Puranas are popular encyclopedic collections of myth, legend, and genealogy, varying greatly as to date and origin .
- Puranas were written almost entirely in narrative couplets, in much the same easy flowing style as the two great Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and the Ramayana .
- The Puranas are ancient Hindu texts eulogizing various deities of the Hindu pantheon through divine stories .
- The multiple scriptures known by the name of Puranas can be categorized under the same class as the ‘Itihasas’ or Histories - the Ramayana and the Mahabharata .
- Puranas are believed to have been derived from the same religious system as the Ramayana and the Mahabharata .

Buddhist Literature in Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit

- **Pali** is an old Prakrit dialect that combines several dialects. Lord Buddha delivered his discourses in Pali, and as a result, early Buddhist literature was written in Pali .
- **Prakrit** is a catch-all name for any language that differs from the mainstream one, Sanskrit. Pali is an old Prakrit dialect that combines several dialects .
- The first Buddhist works were written in Pali, the language spoken in Magadha and South Bihar. It is said that Lord Buddha delivered his sermons in Pali, and they have been recorded in the same language .
- The best known of this group is Pali, which still serves as the canonical language of Buddhism in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia. Other Prakrit languages such as Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi, and Gandhari embody various facets of the literatures of both the Brahmanical/Hindu and Buddhist traditions .
- The prosodic variety of Buddhist lyrics is great; about 30 different meters can be distinguished. Pāli poems, with their new meters (often based on a musical phrase), stylistic features, figures of speech, and choice diction, foreshadow classical kāvya literature in Sanskrit, whose extant specimens date from a later period .
- Early Buddhist texts are therefore often in Prakrit (especially Gāndhārī) or some nonstandard form of Sanskrit, sometimes called Buddhist Sanskrit, an intermediate stage between some Prakrit and standard Sanskrit .

Jain Literature in Pali, Prakrit And Sanskrit

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion. It is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally.
- The oldest surviving material is contained in the canonical Jain Agamas, which are written in Ardhamagadhi, a Prakrit (Middle-Indo Aryan) language.
- Early Jain literature is mostly written in Prakrit language. Prakrit language was a form of Sanskrit language.
- Pali language was a form of Prakrit language which was used in Magadha.
- Pali and Prakrit were the first languages to emerge from Sanskrit. Pali was used for the dissemination of Buddhist ideas, whereas Prakrit was used for the dissemination of Jain doctrines.
- The majority of Buddhist literature is written in Pali, while Jain literature is written in Prakrit.

Kautilya's Arthashastra

- The Arthashastra is an Indian treatise on politics, economics, military strategy, the function of the state, and social organization .
- It is attributed to the philosopher and Prime Minister Kautilya (also known as Chanakya, Vishnugupta, l. c. 350-275 BCE) who was instru-

mental in establishing the reign of the great king Chandragupta Maurya (r. c. 321-c.297 BCE), founder of the Mauryan Empire (322-185 BCE) .

- Kautilya was a professor at Taxila University and later the Mauryan Empire's Prime Minister .
- The Arthashastra refers to a practise of political diplomacy that emerged in India, and is epitomised by the written material on position, policy and military strategy written by Kautilya .
- Kautilya's Arthashastra depicts a bureaucratic welfare state, in fact some kind of socialized monarchy, in which the central government administers the details of the economy for the common good .
- In addition, Kautilya offers a work of genius in matters of foreign policy and welfare, including key principles of international relations from a realist perspective .

Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

1. **Kalidasa** - Considered to be the greatest Sanskrit language poet in India, Kalidasa is widely said to have been from the 5th-century, though most details of his life are subject to speculation. He was arguably one of ancient India's greatest Sanskrit dramatists. Three famous romantic plays written by Kālidāsa are the Mālavikāgnimitram (Mālavikā and Agnimitra), Vikramōrva.
2. **Bhasa** - One of the greatest pioneers of classical Sanskrit drama, Bhasa is said to have lived around 3rd Century A.D. He is one of the earliest known Sanskrit dramatists of ancient India. An Indian scholar, Mahamahopadhyaya Ganapati Sastrigal, rediscovered thirteen of his plays in the year 1912.
3. **Gajapati Purusottama Deva** - Gajapati Purusottama Deva (1497 A.D.) the son of Gajapati Kapilendra Deva, was a great conqueror and a reputed scholar like his father. The authorship of the works, namely Muktichintamani, Gopalarchana vidhi, Nama Malika, Durogotsava and Bhubaneswari Pujapallava, have been attributed to Gajapati Purusottama Deva.
4. **Satyavrat Shastri** - In 2009, Satyavrat Shastri became the first Sanskrit author to win the Jnanpith Award, India's highest literary award.
5. **Vidyadhar Shastri** - Vidyadhar Shastri wrote two epic poems (Mahakavya), seven shorter poems, three plays and three songs of praise (stavana kavya). He received the Vidyavachaspati award in 1962.

These are some of the famous Sanskrit authors in India. There are many more Sanskrit poets and authors who have contributed to the rich literary heritage of India.

Telugu Literature

Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language. It consists of various forms of literature, including but not limited to:

- Poems
- Short stories
- Novels
- Plays
- Song lyrics

There is evidence to suggest that Telugu literature dates back to at least the middle of the first millennium. The first extant works, however, are from the 11th century when the Mahabharata was first translated to Telugu .

The literature is mainly poetry and secular and religious epics, with the śataka (“century” of verses) as a very popular form.

Telugu is a Dravidian language spoken in an area north of Madras, India, and running inland to Bellary. It is the official language of the states of Andhra Pradesh and Telangana and has more than 75 million speakers in the early 21st century. The first written materials in the language date from 575 CE .

Kannada Literature

- Kannada literature is the corpus of written forms of the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka and written in the Kannada script.
- The topics of Kannada literature included grammar, philosophy, prosody, rhetoric, chronicles, biography, history, drama and cuisine, as well as dictionaries and encyclopedias.
- According to critic Joseph T. Shipley, over fifty works on scientific subjects including medicine, mathematics and astrology have been written in the Kannada language.
- The earliest records in Kannada are inscriptions dating from the 6th century AD onward.
- Modern Kannada literature refers to the body of literature written in the Kannada language.

Malayalam Literature

- Malayalam literature comprises those literary texts written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala.
- The first travelogue in any Indian language is the Malayalam Varthamanappusthakam, written by Paremmakkal Thoma Kathanar in 1785.
- The earliest extant literary work is Ramacharitam (late 12th or early 13th century).
- The earliest examples of Malayalam literature are ballads and folk songs, which are entirely indigenous.
- Two outside sources, however, contributed much to the development of the later literature: Sanskrit, which was the language of scholarship, and Tamil, which was the language of administration over a long period.

- In the subsequent period, besides a popular pattu (song) literature, there flourished a literature of mainly erotic poetry composed in the Manipravalam style, an admixture of Malayalam and Sanskrit.

Sangama Literature in India

Sangama literature, also spelled as Cankam, Chankam, or Shangam, is the earliest known writings in the Tamil language. It is thought to have been produced in three literary academies, or Chankams, in Madurai, India, from the 1st to the 4th century CE .

Sangama literature is possibly unique in early Indian literature, which is almost entirely religious. The poems are concerned with two main topics: those of the first five collections are on love (akam), and those of the next two are on heroism (puram), including the praise of kings and their deeds .

Sangama literature is often known as “the poetry of the noble ones” and is South India’s earliest known literature. The earliest accessible Tamil literature is known as Sangama literature .

Sangama literature is broadly classified into akam (inner) and puram (outer). The akam poetry is about emotions and feelings in the context of romantic love, sexual union, and eroticism. The puram poetry is about exploits and heroic deeds in the context of war and public life .

Northern Indian languages

- Northern Indian languages are primarily Indo-Aryan languages.
- The Hindustani lingua franca, which includes both Hindi and Urdu, is native to Northern India.
- Other Indo-Aryan languages native to Northern India include a wide range of western and eastern Hindi dialects, Bihari languages (such as Bhojpuri, Magadhi, and Maithili), Punjabi, Pahari languages, and Kashmiri.
- The historical evolution of modern North Indian languages, such as western and eastern Hindi dialects, Punjabi, Sindhi, Pahari, and Kashmiri languages, and Hindustani, is not well defined.
- The official languages of the states and union territories located in North India include Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Dogri, and English.

North Indian Literature

- North Indian literature is derived from the ancient Indian background, which includes two Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and Ramayana, as well as the Bhagavata-purana and the other Puranas .
- North India was the birthplace of Kalidasa, who wrote classic Sanskrit plays like Mālavikāgnimitram, Abhijñānaśākuntalam and Vikramōrvaśīyam and poems like Raghuvamśa, Kumārasambhava, Ṛtusamhāra

and Meghadūta in which the use of imagination and similes remains unequalled by any other literary work .

- Indian literature refers to the literature produced on the Indian subcontinent until 1947 and in the Republic of India thereafter. The Republic of India has 22 officially recognized languages. The earliest works of Indian literature were orally transmitted .

Persian Literature in India

- Persian literature has a rich history in India, starting under the rule of Balban, where a new epic in the history of Persian literature in India began.
- Persian was appointed as the language of administration by Babur, and as a result, many literate Indians were able to speak the Persian language.
- Persian literary sources of medieval India reflect the thought, social structure, culture, and political institutions of that time.
- Persian was the official language of most Muslim dynasties in the Indian subcontinent, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Bengal Sultanate, the Bahmani Sultanate, the Mughal Empire, and their successor states, and the Sikh Empire.
- Persian literature mostly came from outside the court, such as the works of Sufism and the “popular literature” created by Bengali Muslims.
- Persian literature has profoundly influenced the literatures of Ottoman Turkey, Muslim India, and Turkic Central Asia.

Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature refers to the writings in the Urdu language of the Muslims of Pakistan and northern India .
- It is written in the Perso-Arabic script .
- With a few major exceptions, the literature is the work of Muslim writers who take their themes from the life of the Indian subcontinent .
- Urdu literature is a vast field of immense knowledge and rich literary works by famous poets and writers .
- Though Hindi and Urdu have the same root, they have developed and evolved on distinct lines .
- Urdu literature tends to be dominated by poetry, especially the verse forms of the ghazal and nazm .
- It has expanded into other styles of writing, including that of the short story, or afsana .

Hindi Literature

- Hindi literature includes literature in the various Hindi language which have writing systems.
- Earliest forms of Hindi literature are attested in poetry of Apabhraṃśa like Awadhi, Magadhi, Ardhamagadhi and Marwari languages.

- The origins of Hindi literature is deeply rooted in the Indo-Aryan language called Awadhi and traces its way back to the 11th Century.
- The themes of Hindi literature are majorly comprised of religion and philosophy along with folk stories of the Indian continent. These genres have taken various shapes owing to changing times and issues.
- Hindi literature is divided into four stages viz., Adikal, Bhaktikal, Ritikal and Adhunikkal.
- Between the middle of the 10th century and the beginning of the 14th century, known as Adhikal, Hindi literature was mainly in the form of poetry.

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

1. Hinduism is a major religious and cultural tradition of South Asia, which developed from Vedic religion .
2. The majority of Asian Indians practice Hinduism. The other major religions are Sikhism, Buddhism, Jainism, Christianity, and Islam. A small percentage of the population practices Judaism, Zoroastrianism, and Baha’I Faith .
3. Religion played an important part in the lives of the Indians from the earliest times. The nature of the religious beliefs and practices of the Aryans is also known from the Rig Veda .
4. Indian philosophers do not seek to justify religious faith; philosophic wisdom itself is accorded the dignity of religious truth. Theory is not subordinated to practice, but theory itself, as theory, is regarded as being supremely worthy and efficacious .
5. Hinduism, a major world religion originating on the Indian subcontinent, comprises several and varied systems of philosophy, belief, and ritual. Although the name Hinduism is relatively new, having been coined by British writers in the first decades of the 19th century, it refers to a rich cumulative tradition of texts and practices .
6. Most Indians believe in God and say religion is very important in their lives. Nearly all Indians say they believe in God (97%), and roughly 80% of people in most religious groups say they are absolutely certain that God exists. The main exception is Buddhists, one-third of whom say they do not believe in God .

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices that existed in India before the arrival of the Aryans and the composition of the Vedas.
- The early Dravidian religion constituted a non-Vedic form of Hinduism in that they were either historically or are at present Āgamic. The Āgamas are non-Vedic in origin, and have been dated either as post-Vedic texts, or as pre-Vedic compositions.
- The Indus Valley Civilization, also known as the Harappan Civilization,

is considered to be a part of the pre-Vedic period.

- Religion played an important part in the lives of the Indians from the earliest times.
- Vedic religion, also called Vedism, is the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran. It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas.
- Vedism is the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials.

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- The Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs of some Vedic Indo-Aryan tribes, the arya, who migrated into the Indus River valley region of the Indian subcontinent after the collapse of the Indus Valley Civilisation.
- The historical Vedic religion constituted the religious ideas and practices among some of the Indo-Aryan peoples of the northwest Indian subcontinent (Punjab and the western Ganges plain) during the Vedic period (1500–500 BCE).

Buddhism in India

- Buddhism started in India over 2,600 years ago as a way of life that had the potential of transforming a person .
- It is one of the important religions of South and South-Eastern Asian countries .
- The religion is based upon the teachings and life experiences of its founder Siddhartha Gautam, born in circa 563 BCE .
- During its first century of existence, Buddhism spread from its place of origin in Magadha and Kosala throughout much of northern India, including the areas of Mathura and Ujjayini in the west .
- Buddhism spread outside of Magadha starting in the Buddha's lifetime .
- Mahākāśyapa, a disciple of the Buddha, presided over the first Buddhist council held at Rājagṛha .
- The Second Buddhist Council is said to have taken place at Vaiśālī .
- The Third Buddhist Council was held at Pāṭaliputra .
- India is organising an international conference on 'shared Buddhist heritage' here on March 14-15, as it seeks to focus on the country's civilisational connect with the Shanghai Cooperation Organization (SCO) nations .

- Indian Buddhism, having become primarily a monastic movement, seems to have lost touch with its lay supporters .
- Many monasteries had become very wealthy, so much so that they were able to employ indentured slaves and paid labourers to care for the monks and to tend the lands they owned .

Jainism in India

- Jainism, also known as Jain Dharma, is an Indian religion .
- It is one of the three most ancient religions of India, with roots that go back to at least the mid-first century B.C.E .
- The spiritual goal of Jainism is to become liberated from the endless cycle of rebirth and to achieve an all-knowing state called moksha .
- Jainism teaches that the path to enlightenment is through nonviolence and reducing harm to living things (including plants and animals) as much as possible .
- Jains are the only religious group in India where a majority say they are members of a higher General Category caste .
- On January 20, 2014, the Government of India awarded the minority status to the Jain community in India .
- Along with Hinduism and Buddhism, Jainism is one of the three most ancient Indian religious traditions still in existence and an integral part of South Asian religious .

Six System Indian Philosophy

The Six Systems of Indian Philosophy are:

1. **Nyaya:** Founded by Akshapada Gautama, it is a school that deals with logic and epistemology.
2. **Vaisheshika:** Popularly understood as the atomistic school of Indian Philosophy.
3. **Samkhya:** An extremely complex school of philosophy that goes deep into the understanding of the creator and the creation.
4. **Yoga:** A school of philosophy that focuses on the practice of meditation and self-discipline to attain spiritual insight and tranquility.
5. **Purva Mimamsa:** A school of philosophy that focuses on the interpretation of the Vedas.
6. **Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta:** A school of philosophy that focuses on the study of the Upanishads.

Each of these systems differs in one way or the other in terms of its concepts, phenomena, laws, and dogmas.

Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Adi Shankara was an Indian philosopher and theologian who expounded the doctrine of Advaita Vedanta.

- He renounced the worldly pleasures at a very young age.
- Shankaracharya amalgamated the ideologies of ancient ‘Advaita Vedanta’ and also explained the basic ideas of Upanishads.
- He is the most renowned exponent of the Advaita Vedanta school of philosophy, from whose doctrines the main currents of modern Indian thought are derived.
- He established mathas, which are thought to have aided in the historical growth, renewal, and dissemination of his philosophy.
- Śaṅkara is one of the most widely known and influential Indian philosophers from the classical period, and the most authoritative philosopher of Advaita Vedānta.
- The cultural influence of Shankara and Advaita Vedanta started only centuries later, in the Vijayanagara Empire in the 14th century, when Sringeri matha started to receive patronage from the kings of the Vijayanagara Empire and became a powerful institution.

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

Indian philosophy refers to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent. These systems include both orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) schools of philosophy. The orthodox systems are the Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva-Mimamsa (or Mimamsa), and Vedanta schools of philosophy. The unorthodox systems include Buddhism and Jainism .

Indian philosophy is characterized by its acceptance of the authority of ancient philosophers and its tendency to synthesize. Innovations are represented as extensions of older systems of thought. Indian schools generally embody the doctrines of karma and rebirth; man must be perfected before he can achieve salvation .

Indian thought has been concerned with various philosophical problems, significant among which are the nature of the world (cosmology), the nature of reality (metaphysics), logic, the nature of knowledge (epistemology), ethics, and the philosophy of religion .

Indian philosophies share many concepts such as dharma, karma, samsara, reincarnation, dukkha, renunciation, meditation, with almost all of them focusing on the ultimate goal of liberation of the individual through a diverse range of spiritual practices (moksha, nirvana) .

Heterodox Sects in India

Heterodox sects refer to the religious movements that arose in ancient India as a response to the ritualistic and orthodox practices of the Vedic period. These sects were founded by ascetic wanderers and teachers who attracted groups of followers and established various sects. Their philosophies encompassed antinomian, materialist, and fatalist elements.

Some of the major heterodox sects that arose in India include:

1. **Jainism:** Founded by Mahavira, the 24th Tirthankara, in the 6th century BCE. Jainism is an ascetic religion that emphasizes non-violence and the attainment of liberation through the purification of the soul.
2. **Ajivika:** Founded by Makkhali Gosala in the 5th century BCE, Ajivika was a Śramaṇa movement and a major rival of Vedic religion, early Buddhism, and Jainism. The Ajivikas believed in the doctrine of niyati or destiny, which held that everything in the universe is predetermined and that human effort is futile.
3. **Cārvāka:** Also known as Lokāyata, Cārvāka was a materialist and atheist philosophical movement that rejected the authority of the Vedas and the existence of an afterlife. The Cārvākas believed that the pursuit of pleasure was the ultimate goal of life and that the material world was the only reality.

These heterodox sects challenged the orthodox practices of the time and offered alternative philosophical and religious beliefs to the people of ancient India.

Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.
- Bhakti movement in Hinduism refers to ideas and engagement that emerged in the medieval era on love and devotion to religious concepts built around one or more gods and goddesses.
- Bhakti movement preached against the caste system using the local languages so that the message reached the masses. One who practices bhakti is called a bhakta.
- The Bhakti movement, believed to have originated in Tamil Nadu sometime around the 7th and 8th centuries was a cultural, social and religious revolution, the ramifications of which are felt to this day as the movement gained impetus, galvanised the nation in waves and manifested its influence in India's freedom struggle.
- Bhakti, (Sanskrit: "devotion") in Hinduism, is a movement emphasizing the mutual intense emotional attachment and love of a devotee toward a personal god and of the god for the devotee. According to the Bhagavadgita, a Hindu religious text, the path of bhakti, or bhakti-marga, is superior to the two other religious approaches, the path of knowledge (jnana) and the path of ritual and good works (karma).

Sufi movement in India

- The Sufi movement was a socio-religious movement that took place between the fourteenth and sixteenth centuries.

- The exponents of this movement were unorthodox Muslim saints who had a deep study of Vedantic philosophy and Buddhism of India.
- They had gone through various religious texts of India and had come in contact with great sages and seers of India.
- In India, the Sufi movement began in 1300 A.D. and spread to South India during the 15th century.
- The occurrence of Sufi philosophy in India is supposed to have occurred between 1200 and 1500 A.D.
- Sufis were devoted Muslims who followed Sharia (Islamic law) and thought it to be the only road to salvation.
- Sufism has a history in India evolving for over 1,000 years.
- The presence of Sufism has been a leading entity increasing the reaches of Islam throughout South Asia.
- Following the entrance of Islam in the early 8th century, Sufi mystic traditions became more visible during the 10th and 11th centuries of the Delhi Sultanate.

Socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India

The 19th century was a period of transition and contestation in the socio-religious sphere of pre-independent India. Three streams of reform, revival, and rejection of ancient cultural values were woven around the socio-religious movement or social reform movement initiated by eminent intelligentsia of vision and foresight.

The main reason for the emergence of the reform movements was the spread of western education and liberal ideas. These reforms started in Bengal and soon spread to all parts of India.

The Indian society in the first half of the 19th century was caste-ridden, decadent, and rigid. It followed certain practices that were not in keeping with humanitarian feelings or values but were still being followed in the name of religion.

One of the social and religious reform movements in North India was spearheaded by Swami Dayanand Saraswati (1824-1883) who founded the Arya Samaj in 1875. This society strove against idolatry, polytheism, rituals, priesthood, animal sacrifice, child marriage, and the caste system. It also encouraged the dissemination of western scientific knowledge.

Modern religious practices in India

India is a country with a diverse range of religious practices and beliefs. According to the 2011 census, the majority of the population practices Hinduism (79.8%), followed by Islam (14.2%), Christianity (2.3%), Sikhism (1.7%), Buddhism (0.7%), and Jainism (0.4%). Zoroastrianism, Sanamahism, and Judaism also have an ancient history in India and each has several thousands of Indian adherents.

- **Hinduism** is the dominant religion in India, with around 80% of the population identifying as Hindu.
- **Islam** is the second most prevalent religion in India, with about 14% of the population adhering to it.
- **Christianity** is practiced by about 2% of the population.
- **Buddhism** is practiced by about 1% of the population.
- **Sikhism, Jainism, and Zoroastrianism** are also practiced in India, with smaller numbers of adherents.

Religion still plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians, even though India is a secular country. Indians regularly visit their houses of worship and most give to charitable causes. India's religious groups often share several religious practices and beliefs, and after living side by side for generations, India's minority groups often engage in practices or hold beliefs that are more closely associated with Hindu traditions than with their own.

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

1. Science and Management: Science and management are two distinct fields that have a close relationship. Science is the systematic study of the natural world, while management is the process of planning, organizing, leading, and controlling resources to achieve specific goals.
2. Indian Knowledge System: The Indian knowledge system is a rich and diverse tradition that encompasses a wide range of disciplines, including philosophy, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, and the arts.
3. Relationship between Science, Management, and Indian Knowledge System: Science, management, and the Indian knowledge system are interconnected and can inform and benefit from each other. For example, the principles of Ayurveda, an ancient Indian system of medicine, can be applied to modern management practices to promote health and well-being in the workplace.
4. Applications of Indian Knowledge System in Management: The Indian knowledge system has much to offer in the field of management. For example, the concept of Dharma, or duty, can be applied to business ethics and corporate social responsibility. The principles of Yoga and meditation can be used to promote mindfulness and stress reduction in the workplace.
5. Conclusion: Science, management, and the Indian knowledge system are interconnected fields that can inform and benefit from each other. By drawing on the rich tradition of the Indian knowledge system, modern management practices can be enhanced and enriched.

Astronomy in India and Ancient India

- Astronomy in ancient India can be divided into two major classes. From the third-century BCE, India started having contact with Greece and other

nations outside the subcontinent. So, the basic structure of Indian astronomy had outside influence although the astronomical concepts and the major parameters were India's own.

- Astronomy in ancient India developed to a sophisticated level (to the extent possible, of course) as the sages of ancient India were keen observers of the sky generation after generation.
- The earliest references to astronomy are found in the Rig Veda, which are dated 2000 BC.
- Astronomy has long history in Indian subcontinent stretching from pre-historic to modern times. Some of the earliest roots of Indian astronomy can be dated to the period of Indus Valley civilisation or earlier. Astronomy later developed as a discipline of Vedanga, or one of the "auxiliary disciplines" associated with the study of the Vedas.
- Brahmagupta, one of the most accomplished of the ancient Indian astronomers, had a profound and direct influence on Islamic and Byzantine astronomy.

Chemistry in India and Ancient India

- Chemistry in ancient India was called "Rasayana" in Sanskrit, the language in vogue.
- Rasayana derived its name from "Rasa," which means "extract," maybe from roots, leaves, and stems of plants.
- India has a very ancient tradition of chemistry.
- In ancient texts, amazing information is available on metals, ores, their quarries, compounds, and alloys.
- There are also details of hundreds of devices used in chemical experiments in 'Rasayan Shastra' which we call 'chemistry'.
- Chemical techniques in India can be traced back all the way to the Indus valley or Harappan civilization (3rd millennium BCE).

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

- In ancient India, mathematics or 'Ganita' was the 'Science of Calculations'. It was primarily studied in the context of numerical computation and geometric measurement. Most of the Indian mathematical work can be found as a part of 'Jyotisha' or Astronomy.
- Mathematics in ancient India was so well developed that the body of knowledge was not restricted only to the elite scholars. It was prevalently used even by the common people in their daily activities and profession. The history of Indian mathematics dates back to the vedic period (around 1500 B.C.).
- Ancient India had a great tradition for mathematics. The origin of the ancient mathematics can be traced to the Indus valley civilization. There are some artifacts that clearly give the evidence of mathematical knowledge of the Indus valley people.

- Indian mathematics emerged in the Indian subcontinent from 1200 BCE until the end of the 18th century. In the classical period of Indian mathematics (400 CE to 1200 CE), important contributions were made by scholars like Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara II, and Varāhamihira.
- As well as giving us the concept of zero, Indian mathematicians made seminal contributions to the study of trigonometry, algebra, arithmetic and negative numbers among other areas.

Physics in India and Ancient India

- The Nyaya and Vaisheshika philosophies encouraged a scientific culture in ancient India .
- Achievements of the glorious era of physics in ancient India are highlighted in this article. Our seers and scholars in the Vedic era made pioneering contributions to astronomy and basic physics, most of which have now been vindicated by rigorous theory and/or experiments .
- Some of the key concepts of physics in ancient India include:
 1. Energy and mass are equivalent .
 2. Both heat and light radiation are a manifestation of energy .
 3. Light comprises discrete particles .
 4. A particle also has a wave nature, called the wave-particle duality now .
 5. Radiation has wave .
- Ancient Indian theories lacked an empirical base, but they were brilliant imaginative explanations of the physical structure of the world, and in a large measure, agreed with the discoveries of modern physics .
- Early Indian thinkers developed a number of theoretical systems which centered around two main themes: elements and atoms .
- Maharishi Kanada was the first to systematically develop a theory of atomism around 200 BCE .
- It was further elaborated by the Buddhist atomists Dharmakirti and Dignāga during the 1st millennium CE .

Agriculture in India and Ancient India

- The excavation of the Mehrgarh period sites that is around 8000-6000 BC throws some startling facts about Indian agriculture that began as early as 9000 BC. The domestication of plants and animals are reported in the subcontinent by 9000 BC.
- Vedic agriculture in Ancient India had many developments in science, mathematics, civilization, and Agriculture. Exceptionally the Vedic people were skilled in cultivation and succeeded in Agriculture. The Hindu people strongly followed the traditions and cultures so that every practice of agriculture was associated with these religious customs.
- The agriculture scene of South India was equally bright in Ancient India. The Tamil people cultivated a wide range of crops such as rice, sugarcane,

millets, black pepper, various grains, coconuts, beans, cotton, plantain, tamarind and sandalwood, Jackfruit, coconut, palm, areca and plantain trees etc.

- Indian agriculture began by 9000 BCE on north-west India with the early cultivation of plants, and domestication of crops and animals. Indian sub-continent agriculture was the largest producer of wheat and grain. They settled life soon followed with implements and techniques being developed for agriculture.

Medicine in India and Ancient India

- Ayurveda is the most ancient system of Indian medicine which is gaining importance now in India.
- In the last part of the Vedic period, Indians attained a high degree of knowledge and wisdom due to which they were cultivated medicine, surgery, materia medica (medical material/substance), and chemistry.
- The ancient Indian system of medicine is thought to be the most methodical and holistic, both in terms of ideas and curative measures.
- Some of the most ancient practices of medicine and surgery were conducted here in India.
- Indian medicine has a long history. Its earliest concepts are set out in the sacred writings called the Vedas, especially in the metrical passages of the Atharvaveda, which may possibly date as far back as the 2nd millennium BCE.
- The ancient Indian medical system, also known as Ayurveda, is based on ancient writings that rely on a “natural” and holistic approach to physical and mental health. Ayurvedic medicine is one of the world’s oldest medical systems and remains one of India’s traditional health care systems.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

- Copper metallurgy in India dates back to the Chalcolithic societies in the subcontinent.
- The ‘seven metals of antiquity’, as they are sometimes called, were, more or less in order of discovery: gold, copper, silver, lead, tin, iron and mercury.
- Metals and related concepts were mentioned in various early Vedic age texts. The Rigveda already uses the Sanskrit term *Ayas* (अयस) (metal).
- Zinc was extracted in India as early as in the 4th to 3rd century BCE. Zinc production may have begun in India, and ancient northwestern India is the earliest known civilization that produced zinc on an industrial scale.
- The direct reduction method of iron extraction was used for a fairly long period in India’s history.
- Archeological studies reveal that iron working in India may have begun as early as 1800 BCE, and that by the early 13th century BCE, iron smelting was definitely practiced on a large scale.

Geography in India and Ancient India

- The geography of India is diverse, with landscapes including snow-capped mountains, deserts, plains, hills, and plateaus.
- India got its name from the River Indus.
- In ancient times, the geography of India was a little different than what it is today.
- The northern part of India is bordered by the Himalayan Mountains, while the Hindu Kush stands in the North West.
- The southern region of India is surrounded by three bodies of water.
- The Indian subcontinent is a diverse and fertile region with monsoons, droughts, plains, mountains, deserts, and especially rivers, along which early cities developed in the third millennium B.C.
- Along with Mesopotamia, Egypt, China, and Mesoamerica, the ancient Indian subcontinent was one of the few places in the world to develop its own civilization.
- Ancient India was bounded to the north by large mountains and to the south by the Indian Ocean.
- Major rivers flowed from the northern mountains to the southern plains.

Biology in India and Ancient India

- In the Vedic period, observations of plants and animals were carried out and recorded. 740 plants and 250 animals were recorded in the Vedic literature .
- Indian civilization probably dates back to about 6000 B.C. Information about biology in ancient India comes from the Vedas, a collection of four Sanskrit texts .
- Some researchers, using proper scientific methods, have proclaimed that biology in ancient India was not only at an advanced stage but even better than 20th-century biological knowledge .
- As early as 2500 B.C., the people of northwestern India had a well-developed science of agriculture. The ruins at Mohenjo-daro have yielded seeds of wheat and barley that were cultivated at that time. Millet, dates, melons, and other fruits and vegetables, as well as cotton, were known to the civilization .
- The Project of History of Indian Science, Philosophy, and Culture has a monograph series, Volume 3, titled “Mathematics, Astronomy, and Biology in Indian Tradition” edited by D. P. Chattopadhyaya and Ravinder Kumar .

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

The Harappan Civilization, also known as the Indus River Valley Civilization, existed from 3300-1300 BCE and extended from modern-day northeast Afghanistan to Pakistan and northwest India . Some of the important innovations of this civilization include:

1. **Standardized weights and measures .**
2. **Seal carving .**
3. **Metallurgy with copper, bronze, lead, and tin .**
4. **Efficient system for conservation, harvesting, and storage of water .**
5. **Tools and weapons** such as flat-axes, chisels, arrowheads, spearheads, knives, saws, razors, and fish-hooks .

The Harappan civilization is referred to as a Bronze Age civilization, where unalloyed copper was used for manufacturing artifacts and rarely tin was mixed with copper to make bronze .

Water Management in India and Ancient India

Water management has been an important aspect of Indian civilization for thousands of years. The need to manage water propelled the growth of hydrologic science in ancient India. Hydrologic knowledge in India has a historical footprint extending over several millennia through the Harappan civilization (3000 – 1500 BCE) and the Vedic Period (1500 –500 BCE) .

Mohenjo-Daro and Dholavira, the two major cities of the Indus Valley, are the best examples of advanced water management and drainage systems. The Great Bath of Mohenjo-Daro of the Indus Valley is considered the “earliest public water tank of the ancient world” .

Visvesvarayya, the architect of water management in modern India, took inspiration from the ancient civilizations. Not only in water management, ancient Indian technology adopted simple, effective and sustainable methods in the domain of water treatment too (eg. reducing fluoride levels by adding Tulasi, Vetiver, and Drumsticks) .

The Harappan civilization epitomizes the level of development of water sciences in ancient India that includes construction of sophisticated hydraulic structures, wastewater disposal systems .

Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

- Textiles was a great industry in ancient India. Some of the finest cloth in the world was from India. Textiles became one of the major commodities of trade between India and other countries.
- Cotton was also cultivated in India before anywhere else.
- The textile technology was highly developed in India. India was probably the first nation where the production of cotton fiber and manufacture of textiles had started.
- India was highly skilled in making cotton fabrics like China for silk. Indian cotton fabric was prized for its whiteness and fineness.
- The manufacturing of cotton into cloth by tools is an ancient art in India.

- The earliest surviving Indian cotton threads date to around 4000 BC and dyed fabrics from the region are documented as far back as 2500 BC.
- In ancient Greece and Babylon, the very name 'India' was shorthand for 'cotton'.
- India's textiles are embedded in every aspect of its identity.
- The story of textiles in India is one of the oldest in the world and goes back to prehistoric times.
- Concrete evidence of textile production and use starts appearing from the proto-historic times i.e. 3rd Millennium BCE.

Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

1. Indic writing systems include the syllabic Kharosthi and semialphabetic Brahmi scripts of ancient India.
2. No systems of writing subsequently developed from the Kharosthi script.
3. Many phones and computers in India are not specifically designed with Indic script keyboards and instead use the Roman alphabet keyboards common in the West. Transliteration software renders this moot.
4. The increased use of Indic-language scripts has also lead to newer and more artistic fonts for Indian languages.
5. While India's scripts are ancient, technology and modernity are changing their usage patterns, and are in fact allowing them to thrive as never before in standardized and widely used forms.
6. Ancient Indian scripts have been used in the history of the Indian subcontinent as writing systems.
7. The Indian subcontinent consists of various separate linguistic communities, each of which share a common language and culture.
8. The people of the ancient India wrote in many scripts which largely have common roots.

Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India

- One of the earliest notes of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443 .
- Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special occasions like weddings .
- Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa .
- There is no mention of fireworks in India before the end of the 15th century .
- Foreign travellers like Verthama have chronicled their use in Vijayanagar Empire .
- Kautuk Chintamani, compiled by Gajapati Pratap Chandra Rudra Dev

of Orissa around the same time, also describes pyrotechnics as expensive amusement, fit for rulers and the very rich .

Trade in Ancient India

- Trade has existed in Ancient India since time immemorial. Routes such as the Silk Route, Amber Road, and the Spice Route were used to trade materials from India. Maritime trade, as well, flourished .
- India has thrived in trade since 2600 BC. During Harappan civilization, gold was the mainly traded good in the country .
- Ancient India saw trade since the Harappan civilization. The new cities that came up during the ancient times included Pataliputra, Ujjain, Puhar, and Mathura. Trade in the country during early years involved gold and then textiles, spices, as well as precious metals .
- Trade was an important source of commerce and it is thought that ancient Mesopotamian texts which mention Magan and Meluhha refer to India generally or, perhaps, Mohenjo-Daro specifically. Artifacts from the Indus Valley region have been found at sites in Mesopotamia though their precise point of origin in India is not always clear .
- Much of the significant data for long-distance and maritime trade across South Asia in the ancient period comes from archaeological sources. Nevertheless, textual sources too may have some things interesting and significant to say about material culture and trade in the ancient world .

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India

- The history of India dates back to 2500 BC, which was when the Indus Valley cities were just starting to grow.
- The Indus Valley civilization existed around the Indus River between 3300 to 1300 BCE. It is also referred to as the Harappan Civilization.
- There were a number of empires ruling India between India from 2500 BC to 1857 AD including Mauryans, Guptas, Turks, Muslim, Mogul and more.
- Starting with the 16th century, parts of India were organized in different empires and kingdoms. Some of the most important empires in Indian territory were the Mughal Empire (1526- 1857), the Maratha Empire (1674-1818), and the Sikh Empire (1799-1849). The Mughal Empire was ruled by a Muslim dynasty, influenced by Persian culture.
- During the Gupta empire—from about 320 to 550 CE—emperors used Hinduism as a unifying religion and helped popularize it by promoting educational systems that included Hindu teachings; they also gave land to brahmins. The Gupta emperors helped make Hinduism the most popular religion on the Indian subcontinent.

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

Cultural heritage refers to the legacy of physical artifacts and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations, maintained in the present and bestowed for the benefit of future generations. Cultural heritage includes tangible culture (such as buildings, monuments, landscapes, books, works of art, and artifacts), intangible culture (such as folklore, traditions, language, and knowledge), and natural heritage (including culturally significant landscapes, and biodiversity).

Performing arts are a form of art in which artists use their voices, bodies or inanimate objects to convey artistic expression. It is different from visual arts, which is when artists use paint, canvas or various materials to create physical or static art objects. Performing arts include a range of disciplines which are performed in front of a live audience, including theatre, music, dance, opera, magic, illusion, mime, spoken word, puppetry, circus arts, performance art, recitation and public speaking.

- Cultural heritage and performing arts are closely related, as performing arts are often a means of preserving and transmitting cultural heritage.
- Cultural heritage can provide inspiration for performing arts, and performing arts can help to keep cultural heritage alive.
- The preservation of cultural heritage and the promotion of performing arts can contribute to the development of cultural tourism, which can have economic benefits for a region or country.
- Cultural heritage and performing arts can also play a role in promoting social cohesion and understanding between different cultures.

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

Indian architecture is rooted in the history, culture, and religion of India. Among several architectural styles and traditions, the best-known include the many varieties of Hindu temple architecture and Indo-Islamic architecture, especially Rajput architecture, Mughal architecture, South Indian architecture and Indo-Saracenic architecture.

The Mauryan period is considered as the beginning of the classical period of Indian architecture. Nagara and Dravidian architectural styles developed in the early medieval period with the rise of Hindu revivalism and predominant role of Hindu temple architecture in the Indian Subcontinent.

The advent of the 20th century saw a growth in the economy as well as the population, this, in turn, created a high demand for housing. Globalisation and a migratory population led to a shift in Indian architecture from a holistic point of view.

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

1. Indian architecture is rooted in the history, culture, and religion of India .

2. Among several architectural styles and traditions, the best-known include the many varieties of Hindu temple architecture and Indo-Islamic architecture, especially Rajput architecture, Mughal architecture, South Indian architecture and Indo-Saracenic architecture .
3. The framework of protecting Architectural heritage was introduced about 150 years back when the Archeological Survey of India (ASI) was established by the British colonial government .
4. India through its prosperous cultural heritage and rich history has witnessed the rise and fall of several great dynasties which is conspicuous through the greatness of ancient Indian architecture .
5. The magnificence of these buildings, monuments, bridges, forts, halls, mosques, temples, and churches makes one fully comprehend the glorious periods through which India has passed .
6. India's architecture continues to diversify as the country grows, reverting to its traditions while adhering to modern trends and minority communities .
7. Engineering and Architecture in Ancient and Medieval India includes Civil Works of Indus Valley-Vedic-Post-Vedic period, Buddhist Stupas and Viharas, Temple architecture, Rock-Cut architecture and Indo-Islamic architecture .

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

Sculpture art is one of the oldest art forms to exist in India, rooting itself as a widespread practice even in the ancient Indus Valley Civilisation (c.3300-1300 BCE). India is known to hold a variety of sculpture art- depicting the Indian Culture along with a varied significance.

Some of the famous sculptures in India are: 1. The Dancing Girl, Mohen Jo Daro, c. 2500 BC- The sculpture of the popular 'Moving Girl', observed to be in the hours of Harappa. 2. Ashoka Pillar, Sarnath, third Century B.C.- The most praised capital (the four-lion one at Sarnath (Uttar Pradesh)).

Indian sculpture artists have always been fascinated by figures from mythology and religion as it runs strongly in our culture. Sculptures of Hindu gods and goddesses, Lord Buddha, figures from Christianity and so on are some of the most common themes in sculpture art as seen from the ancient times.

The subject matter of Indian sculpture was almost invariably abstracted human forms that were used to instruct people in the truths of the Hindu, Buddhist, or Jain religions. The nude was used both to represent the body as a symbol of spirit and to reveal the imagined shapes of the gods.

Cultural awareness promotes a better understanding of our heritage to effectively safeguard and spread India's rich intangible and tangible cultural art heritage, such as paintings and sculptures.

Seals as Cultural Heritage of India

- Seals have been an integral part of the traditions and cultural heritage of India.
- The famous seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are small rectangular pieces that have been found in abundance across the expanse of the civilization. They have been called seals as their imprint has been found on clay pieces with remnants of cloth fiber .
- Seals of Ancient India give us useful information about the civilization of Indus valley. Seals were used in ancient times for trade. The seals are rectangular, circular or even cylindrical in shape .
- One of the most famous seals is the Pashupati seal, which is in the National Museum, New Delhi. It was moved there with the other Mohenjo-daro finds before independence .
- Seals decorated with animal figures, such as elephants, tigers, and water buffalos, have been one of the most commonly discovered artifacts in Indus Valley cities .

Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

1. The history of coins of India originates from the years of Indus Valley civilisation. Cowry Shells were the first to be used as a symbol of money. Sites like Harappa and Mohenjo Daro show the use of metal coins as a means of trading and exchange of goods.
2. Gold coins in ancient India reached their peak with the Gupta emperors from the 3rd to 6th century AD. This was India's Golden Age, where there was prosperity all around, and people lived the good life, full of culture and joy.
3. The Coinage of India has played a very important role in the history of economic development of the country ever since its inception. The motifs, symbols, stamp used on the Indian coins since ancient times depict a lot about the rulers and their reign. Many archaeologists and explorers have done a deep analysis of these ancient Indian coins.
4. Many dynasties ruled over India and each of them introduced their coins which depicted their culture and beliefs. These coins are generally placed between the 2nd century BC and 2nd century AD.

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

- Pottery in the Indian subcontinent has an ancient history and is one of the most tangible and iconic elements of Indian art .
- Evidence of pottery has been found in the early settlements of Lahuradewa and later the Indus Valley Civilization .
- Today, it is a cultural art that is still practiced extensively in the Indian subcontinent .
- Pottery plays an important role in studying culture and reconstructing the past .

- Pottery is among the most timeless living craft traditions of India .
- From flower pots, terracotta chimes to the thirst-quenching suraahi and matki, pottery is practiced across the length and breadth of the country .
- A visit to the countryside and “potter’ villages” speaks volumes about the economic importance of this craft .

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

- Indian puppetry is a subject as varied as the many cultural traditions of the Indian subcontinent.
- Several regional genres make puppetry one of the richest heritages of India.
- There is enormous diversity, but there are common traits.
- India is home to many contemporary initiatives that renovate puppetry while supporting the preservation of heritage styles.
- Living traditions include different types of puppets: string puppets, rod puppets, glove puppets, and shadow puppets.
- Puppetry has been in India a means of entertainment and a form of cultural and religious dissemination.
- In the post-colonial period, the high-speed modernization wave that invested India put many of the puppetry traditions at risk of extinction.
- Several government and private initiatives contributed to save endangered styles, but many are still at risk.
- The origin of puppetry in India cannot be dated, but mythology provides at least two stories that are witness to the importance of this art.
- India’s puppetry tradition forms an integral part of the culture of performance in the country.
- Puppetry Art of India includes the representation of graphic stories utilizing puppets, live music, gestures, and narratives.
- They are therefore at the intersection of theatrics and storytelling.
- It has mostly been done at religious events, ceremonies, and temple celebrations.

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

1. India celebrates its classical dance culture, a priceless heritage of the ancient times. The Indian classical dance forms have made it to international heights from the four walls of temples and royal courts. A cultural legacy for generations, the classical dance heritage of India is worth a tribute today .
2. The origins of dance in India go back into the ancient times. The earliest paleolithic and neolithic cave paintings such as the UNESCO world heritage site at Bhimbetka rock shelters in Madhya Pradesh shows dance scenes .
3. Every part of India has its unique folk dance, which isn’t as complex as the classical form of dance but, in its simplicity, it reflects the deep-seated

beliefs of their people .

4. Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India. Folk dances abound all across the country, and huge crowds of people can be found dancing at festivals and weddings. Dance and song features heavily in Indian cinema (so-called “Bollywood” films), too .
5. The various forms of dance that come under the umbrella have their roots in Hindu religious musical theatres. The Sangeet Natak Academy recognises eight classical dance forms in India, namely, Bharatnatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, Kathakali, Odissi, Mohiniyattam, Manipuri and Satriya .

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

1. India is a land of cultural diversities. Every region in India has its own form of folk music. This rich tradition of folk music is very much alive in not just rural India, but also in some metros.
2. The music of India includes Indian classical music, multiple varieties of folk, popular, pop, and, most recently, rock music. The origins of Indian classical music can be found in the oldest Hindu scriptures, the Vedas.
3. There are two major traditions of Indian classical music. They are Carnatic music, a style associated with South India, and Hindustani music, a style associated with North India.
4. Indian music always has had strong ties with mythology and religion and thus produced an art that is as different from Western music as Hinduism is from Christianity. It achieves unity through similarity rather than through change.
5. The music of India is as diverse as its many cultures. India has over a billion people and hundreds of dialects and languages spread across the seventh largest country in the world, but there is still an undeniable “sound” that makes Indian music unmistakable.

Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India

- India has a long, rich and illustrious history of folk theatre.
- Folk theatre is a composite art form in India, with a fusion of elements from music, dance, and many forms.
- It has deep roots in local identity and native culture and is an important indigenous tool of interpersonal communication.
- India has the most ancient form of theatre as textual, sculptural, and dramatic -the Natya Shastra.
- The Natya Shastra is the authentic text of theatre art, originated around 500 BC.
- It is classical and written in Sanskrit by Bharat Muni.
- Theatre in ancient India played a major role in the overall enrichment of Indian tradition, culture, artistry, and creativity since the remote past.

- The origin of theatre in ancient India has been marked as the result of the religious ritualism of the “Vedic Aryans”.
- As theatre developed in India and began to flourish again, three types of historical Indian theatre evolved: the classical period, the traditional period, and the modern period.
- The traditional regional forms of theatre have today reached the stage of heritage, with some, such as Koodiyattam officially being recognized by UNESCO as a Masterpiece of the Oral and Intangible Heritage of Humanity.
- Kutiyattam, Sanskrit theatre, which is practised in the province of Kerala, is one of India’s oldest living theatrical traditions.
- Originating more than 2,000 years ago, Kutiyattam represents a synthesis of Sanskrit classicism and reflects the local traditions of Kerala.

Drama as Cultural Heritage of India

- Traditional theatre has been prevalent in India since ancient times. It was enacted by bards who traveled from one village to another, and the stories were based on epics of Mahabharat and Ramayan, as well as, the Puranas and Upanishads .
- Indian drama has originated and developed from the storehouse of Sanskrit in India. It has given its incredible impact and limit to perfection since ancient times. Drama is basically a form of performing arts, where stories are enacted by the utilization of dialogue, music, signal, and dance .
- Since the beginning of civilization, music, dance, and drama have been an integral aspect of Indian culture. Initially, these art forms were used as a medium of propagation for religion and social reforms in which music and dance were incorporated to gain popularity. From the Vedic era to the medieval period, the performing arts remained an important source of educating the masses .
- Indian drama is a performance style all its own, including combinations of speech, gesture, music, dance, and sound. Indian drama was highly uninfluenced by other cultures .
- Urdu Drama evolved from the prevailing dramatic traditions of North India shaping Rahas or Raas as practiced by exponents like Wajid Ali Shah, Nawab of Awadh. His dramatic experiments led to the famous Inder Sabha of Agha Hasan Amanat and later this tradition took the shape of Parsi theatre .

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India

- Indian art forms are a part of the rich culture and heritage of the country. Beautiful bursts of color with vivid patterns and symbolic images capture the culture beautifully on the canvas.
- Indian art is among the oldest in the world, with archaeologists discovering paintings that were created over 70,000 years ago. Therefore, Indian

paintings hold a special place in history and continue to influence artists to this day.

- Traditional art in India depicted cultural, religious, and political developments through clever metaphors.
- The earliest known Indian paintings can be dated to pre-historic times, such as those found in places like Bhimbetka rock shelters in Madhya Pradesh.
- Each painting style that arose in India symbolized traditions, practices, and ideas that had been passed down from past generations. Though early Indian paintings were created on walls, the art form was later adapted to more contemporary materials such as paper, fabric, canvas, and other materials.
- India has one of the world's largest collections of songs, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings, and writings that are known as the 'Intangible Cultural Heritage' (ICH) of humanity.

Martial Arts Traditions of India

Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practiced for a variety of reasons – self-defense, competition, physical health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development. India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts .

- India's Martial traditions originated in South India .
- India has its own wrestling art called Khusti .
- Indian Martial arts have influenced Asian martial arts in significant ways .
- Kushti is one of the most popular martial arts in India. It started off during the Mughal times where Malla Yuddha, a local sport was combined with a Persian sport named Varzesh-e-Bastani .
- Indian martial arts refers to the fighting systems of the Indian subcontinent. A variety of terms are used for the English phrases "Indian martial arts", deriving from ancient sources .
- Kalaripayattu is often known as the 'Mother Of All Martial Arts'. This 3000-year old art form originating from Kerala, draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile .
- The ancient Manipuri Martial Art, also known as Huyen Lallong, is Thang-Ta. Swords and spears are used in Manipuri Martial arts, a powerful yet gracefully complex technique .
- Lathi is India's oldest armed martial art. It is also regarded as one of the world's earliest martial arts weapons .

Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

India is a land of vibrant celebrations and is known for its numerous fairs and festivals. These celebrations showcase the culture and life of India and are celebrated with high spirit in every town. The flow of festivals continues throughout the year in India.

Some of the most famous fairs and festivals of India include: - Modhera Dance Festival of Gujarat, also called the Uttarardh Mahotsavaor, is a cultural celebration inside the premises of Modhera Sun Temple. - Pongal of South India is the harvest festival of the land. - Konark Dance Festival of Odisha. - Jaisalmer Desert Festival. - Goa Carnival. - Nehru Trophy Boat Race of Kerala. - Pushkar Mela. - Bikaner Camel Festival.

India has one of the world's largest collections of songs, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings and writings that are known as the 'Intangible Cultural Heritage' (ICH) of humanity.

These fairs and festivals are held according to the lunar calendar and are extremely popular among the locals as well as the tourists. They provide a glimpse into the rich cultural heritage of India and are a must-visit for anyone interested in experiencing the diversity of this country.

Current developments in Arts and Cultural in India

1. India has a significant cultural capital that includes 37 world heritage sites, two thriving film industries, and a diversely vibrant cultural heritage. Many tier 1 and tier 2 cities have been actively working towards creating a unique cultural identity for themselves.
2. The Kiran Nadar Museum of Art is developing a new institution, the Museum of Art and Photography will open in Bangalore, the Gujral Foundation is commissioning a public pavilion series in Delhi, and the Kochi Biennale will have its fifth edition this December.
3. Three cities in India have recently joined the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities. These include two cities Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala and Warangal in Telangana.
4. The Ministry of Culture, Government of India provides financial assistance for cultural activities in performing arts, building grants including studio theatres, allied cultural activities, and Tagore Cultural Complexes. It also has a scheme of scholarship and fellowship for the promotion of art and culture.
5. India has one of the world's largest collections of songs, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings, and writings that are known as the 'Intangible Cultural Heritage' (ICH) of humanity.

Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World

India has made numerous contributions to the world in various fields. Here are some of the most significant contributions:

1. **Mathematics:** Hindus were precursors to mathematics. They made significant contributions in the field of mathematics, including the invention of the concept of zero and the decimal system .
2. **Architecture:** India is known for its picturesque and quirky urban architecture .
3. **Textiles:** The cotton fabrics produced in India are among the best in the world .
4. **Medicine:** Hindus knew the technique to sterilize and use drugs to heal the sick .
5. **Language:** India is the richest linguistic nation in the world .
6. **Art:** India has a rich tradition of art, including painting, sculpture, and architecture .

These are just a few examples of the many contributions India has made to the world. India's cultural diversity and ancient civilization have had a profound impact on the world.

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

- Indian cinema is known for producing the largest number of films in the world and has one of Asia's largest film industries, employing thousands of people.
- The Indian film industry makes films in various languages, including Hindi, Telugu, Tamil, Bhojpuri, and others.
- India is a powerhouse of performing arts, showcasing resplendent costumes, dazzling jewelry, quaint adornments, and traditional practices.
- Cinema in India has evolved as a potent art form capable of mirroring socio-political and economic issues.
- The year 1931 proved to be a landmark for Indian cinema as it marked the end of the silent era with Ardeshir Irani making India's first sound film *Alam Ara*, made in Hindi/Urdu.
- The early commercial success of Phalke's films paved the way for more motion pictures and set the ball rolling for cinema as a commercial art form.
- Indian theater is another type of performing art that is still prevalent, with a rich history originating from 200 BC.